

Review of Last Lecture

4.5 Inverse Laplace Transform

4.6 Analyzing Circuits and S-domain Models via Inverse Laplace Method

4.5.1 Zeros and Poles of Laplace Transform

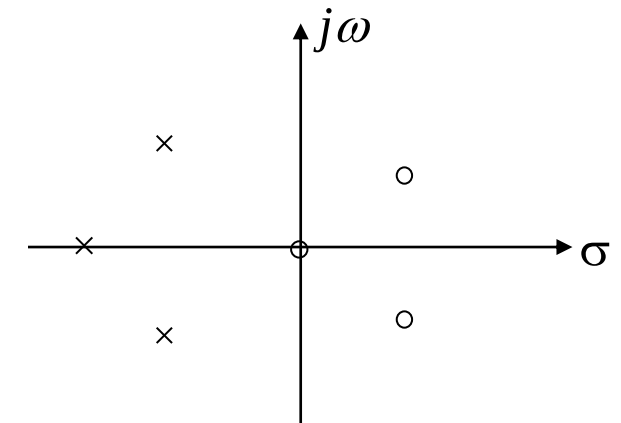
$$f(t) = \mathcal{L}^{-1}\{F(s)\} = \frac{1}{2\pi j} \int_{\sigma-j\infty}^{\sigma+j\infty} F(s) e^{st} ds$$

According to the formula of the inverse Laplace transform, contour integration can be applied to solve it. However, in practice, most Laplace transforms are in the form of **rational fractions**:

$$F(s) = \frac{N(s)}{D(s)} = \frac{\sum_{i=0}^m b_i s^i}{\sum_{i=0}^n a_i s^i} = \frac{\prod_{i=1}^m (s - z_i)}{\prod_{i=1}^n (s - p_i)}$$

The roots z_i of the numerator polynomial $N(s) = 0$ are called the **zeros** of $F(s)$;

the roots p_i of the denominator polynomial $D(s) = 0$ are called the **poles** of $F(s)$



Zero-pole Distribution Diagram

4.5.2 Finding the Inverse Laplace Transform

When analyzing systems using the Laplace transform method, the final step is to perform the **inverse Laplace transform** on the image function.

1. Partial Fraction Method (Heaviside Method)

(1) Case of simple real poles ($p_1 \cdots p_n$)

When $m < n$, $F(s) \stackrel{\text{Decomposition}}{=} \frac{k_1}{s - p_1} + \cdots + \frac{k_n}{s - p_n}$ (Proper Fraction)

where $k_i = (s - p_i)F(s)|_{s=p_i}$ (Residue) (See the textbook for the proof)

It is known from the properties of Laplace transform:

$$Ae^{-\alpha t}u(t) \xleftrightarrow{LT} \frac{A}{s + \alpha}$$

$$F(s) \xrightarrow{L^{-1}} f(t) = \left(k_1 e^{p_1 t} + \cdots + k_n e^{p_n t} \right) u(t)$$

4.5 Inverse Laplace Transform



(2) The case where poles include conjugate complex roots ($p_{1,2} = -\alpha \pm j\beta$)

$$\begin{aligned} F(s) &= \frac{A(s)}{D(s) \left[(s + \alpha)^2 + \beta^2 \right]} \\ &= \frac{A(s)}{D(s)(s + \alpha - j\beta)(s + \alpha + j\beta)} \end{aligned}$$

where $D(s)$ is the remaining part of the denominator after removing the conjugate complex roots.

$$\text{Set } F_1(s) = \frac{A(s)}{D(s)}$$

$$\text{then } F(s) = \frac{F_1(s)}{(s + \alpha - j\beta)(s + \alpha + j\beta)}$$

$$\begin{aligned} &\text{Decomposition} \\ &== \frac{K_1}{s + \alpha - j\beta} + \frac{K_2}{s + \alpha + j\beta} + \dots \end{aligned}$$

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$$\text{where } K_{1,2} = \frac{F_1(-\alpha \pm j\beta)}{\pm 2j\beta} \text{ (residue)}$$

K_1 , K_2 have a **conjugate** relationship: $K_{1,2} = A \pm jB$

Thus, the inverse transform of the part related to the conjugate complex roots is $\xrightarrow{\text{LT}^{-1}}$

$$\begin{aligned} f_c(t) &= e^{-\alpha t} (K_1 e^{j\beta t} + K_1^* e^{-j\beta t}) u(t) \\ &= e^{-\alpha t} \{ (A + jB)[\cos(\beta t) + j \sin(\beta t)] + (A - jB)[\cos(\beta t) - j \sin(\beta t)] \} u(t) \\ &= 2e^{-\alpha t} [A \cos(\beta t) - B \sin(\beta t)] u(t) \end{aligned}$$

α --attenuation factor; β --oscillation frequency

4.5 Inverse Laplace Transform



(3) The case where poles include multiple roots (a k -fold p_1 , simple roots $p_2 \dots p_n$)

$$\begin{aligned} F(s) &= \frac{A(s)}{D(s)} = \frac{A(s)}{(s-p_1)^k D_1(s)} \\ &= \frac{K_{11}}{(s-p_1)^k} + \frac{K_{12}}{(s-p_1)^{k-1}} + \dots + \frac{K_{1k}}{(s-p_1)} + \sum_{i=2}^n \frac{K_i}{s-p_i} \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^k \frac{K_{1i}}{(s-p_1)^{k-i+1}} + \sum_{i=2}^n \frac{K_i}{s-p_i} \end{aligned}$$

To find K_i and K_{11} , the method is the same as the first case:

$$K_{11} = (s-p_1)^k F(s) \Big|_{s=p_1}$$

To find other coefficients,

$$\text{Let } F_1(s) = (s-p_1)^k \cdot F(s)$$

$$\text{when } i=2, \quad K_{12} = \frac{d}{ds} F_1(s) \Big|_{s=p_1}$$

$$\text{when } i=3, \quad K_{13} = \frac{1}{2} \frac{d^2}{ds^2} F_1(s) \Big|_{s=p_1}$$

4.5 Inverse Laplace Transform



$$K_{1i} = \frac{1}{(i-1)!} \left. \frac{d^{i-1}}{ds^{i-1}} F_1(s) \right|_{s=p_1} \quad (i = 1, 2, \dots, k)$$

$$F_1(s) = (s - p_1)^k \cdot F(s)$$

The inverse transform of the multiple root part $\xrightarrow{\text{LT}^{-1}}$:

$$f_c(t) = e^{p_1 t} \left[\frac{K_{11}}{(k-1)!} t^{k-1} + \frac{K_{12}}{(k-2)!} t^{k-2} \dots + \frac{K_{1i}}{(k-i)!} t^{k-i} \dots + K_{1k} \right] u(t)$$

Given $F(s) = \left(\frac{1 - e^{-s}}{s} \right)^2$, find its Inverse Laplace Transform $f(t)$.

- ☒ A $f(t) = tu(t) - 2(t-1)u(t-1) + (t-2)u(t-2)$
- ☐ B $f(t) = (t-1)u(t-1) + (t-2)u(t-2)$
- ☐ C $f(t) = tu(t) - (t-1)u(t-1) + (t-2)u(t-2)$
- ☐ D $f(t) = tu(t) - (t-2)u(t-2)$

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4.5 Inverse Laplace Transform



Given $F(s) = \left(\frac{1 - e^{-s}}{s} \right)^2$, find its Inverse Laplace Transform $f(t)$.

Solution:
$$F(s) = \frac{1 - 2e^{-s} + e^{-2s}}{s^2} = \frac{1}{s^2} - \frac{2}{s^2}e^{-s} + \frac{1}{s^2}e^{-2s}$$

$$tu(t) \leftrightarrow \frac{1}{s^2}$$

Using the Time-Shifting Property:

$$\therefore f(t) = tu(t) - 2(t-1)u(t-1) + (t-2)u(t-2)$$

4.5 Inverse Laplace Transform



Even if $F(s)$ is not a proper fraction, i.e. $n < m$, it can also be expressed as the sum of a polynomial in s and a **proper fraction**:

Example:
$$F(s) = \frac{s^3 + 4s^2 + 6s + 5}{s^2 + 3s + 2} = s + 1 + \frac{s + 3}{s^2 + 3s + 2}$$

In the above equation, the inverse Laplace transform of $s+1$ is equal to : $\delta'(t) + \delta(t)$

For the inverse transform of a **rational proper fraction** in Laplace transform, solve it using the **partial fraction method**.

If $F(s)$ is an **irrational function** containing e^{-as} , the term e^{-as} does not participate in partial fraction decomposition, and the solution utilizes the **Time-Shifting Property**.

Example:
$$\frac{e^{-2s}}{s^2 + 3s + 2} = F_1(s)e^{-2s} \quad F_1(s) = \frac{1}{s+1} + \frac{-1}{s+2}$$

$$\text{So } f_1(t) = L^{-1}[F_1(s)] = (e^{-t} - e^{-2t})u(t)$$

$$\text{So } f(t) = f_1(t-2) = [e^{-(t-2)} - e^{-2(t-2)}]u(t-2)$$

4.6.1 Solving Differential Equations Using Laplace Transform

Steps for Solving Differential Equations Using Laplace Transform:

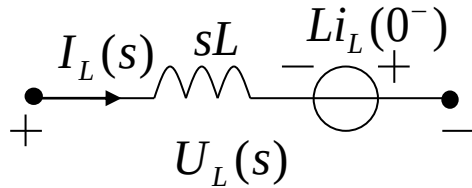
- (1) Take the Laplace transform of the differential equation, paying attention to applying the differentiation property;
- (2) Solve the algebraic equation in the s-domain to find the Laplace transform of the response;
- (3) Find the inverse Laplace transform, i.e., find the time-domain expression of the response.

4.6.2 Solving Circuits Using Laplace Transform

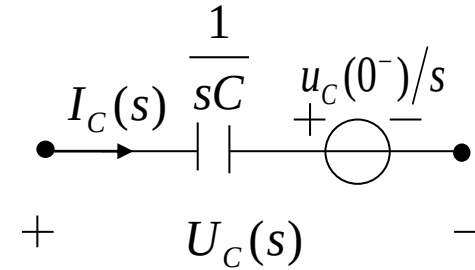
s-domain Circuit Analysis Method

1. Replace each component in the network with its **s-domain model**;
Write the signal source as a transformed expression ($\frac{E}{s}$ or $\frac{E}{sR}$, $U_s(s)$ or $I_s(s)$)
2. Analyze the constructed s-domain model diagram using KVL and KCL to obtain the required transformed system equations.
(The numerical operations performed are algebraic relationships, similar to resistive networks; Thevenin's theorem and Norton's theorem are both applicable; It is suitable for network analysis with **many nodes or loops**.)
3. Find the **Laplace transform** of the response.
4. Find the **inverse Laplace transform**, i.e., find the time-domain expression of the response.

1) Loop Analysis (KVL)

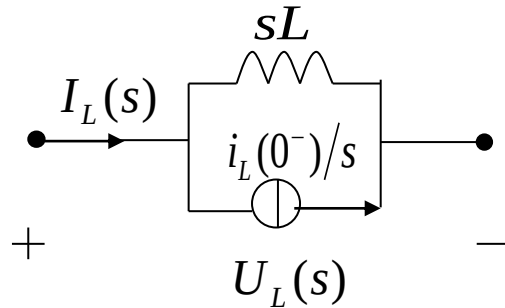


$$U_L(s) = sLI_L(s) - Li_L(0^-)$$

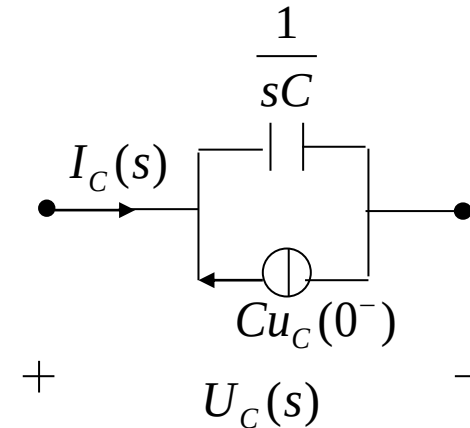


$$U_C(s) = \frac{1}{sC} I_C(s) + \frac{1}{s} u_c(0^-)$$

2) Node Analysis (KCL)



$$I_L(s) = \frac{1}{sL} U_L(s) + \frac{1}{s} i_L(0^-)$$



$$I_C(s) = sCU_C(s) - Cu_c(0^-)$$

Contents of This Lecture

4.7 System Function (Network Function)

4.8 Time-domain Characteristics from System Function Zero-pole Distribution

4.9 Frequency Response from System Function Zero-pole Distribution

Learning Objectives of This Lecture

1. Proficiently grasp the interrelationship among **system function**, **system differential equation**, and **system simulation block diagram (Important)**;
2. Be able to qualitatively determine the characteristics of **impulse response** using the zero-pole distribution of **system function**;
3. Proficiently use **system function** to analyze the time-domain characteristics of **zero-state response**;
4. Proficiently use the zero-pole distribution of **system function** to roughly sketch the **frequency response characteristic** curve (**Important**).

4.7.1 Definition of System Function

If a time signal acts on a system and its output is still this time signal, only the **amplitude and phase are changed**, this time signal is called the **characteristic signal** of the system. The function that characterizes the changed amplitude and phase is called the **eigenvalue** or **system function** of the system.

The signal $e^{j\omega t}$ is the **characteristic signal** of the system, and the function $H(\omega)$ (the Fourier transform of the system's unit impulse response $h(t)$ is the **system function**, also known as the **frequency response** of the system.

$$\begin{array}{c} e^{j\omega t} \longrightarrow \boxed{h(t)} \longrightarrow y(t) = h(t) * e^{j\omega t} = H(\omega)e^{j\omega t} = |H(\omega)|e^{j[\omega t + \varphi(\omega)]} \end{array}$$

In fact, the **exponential signal e^{st}** is also a **characteristic signal** of the system.

$$\begin{array}{c} e^{st} \longrightarrow \boxed{h(t)} \longrightarrow y(t) = h(t) * e^{st} = H(s)e^{st} \end{array}$$

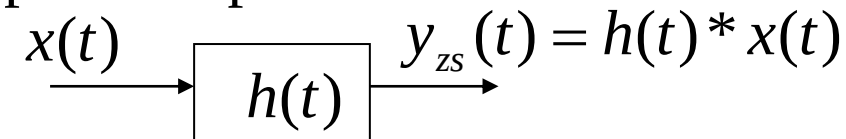
$$y(t) = h(t) * e^{st} = \int_{0_-}^{\infty} h(\tau)e^{s(t-\tau)}d\tau = e^{st} \int_{0_-}^{\infty} h(\tau)e^{-s\tau}d\tau = H(s)e^{st}$$

4.7 System Function

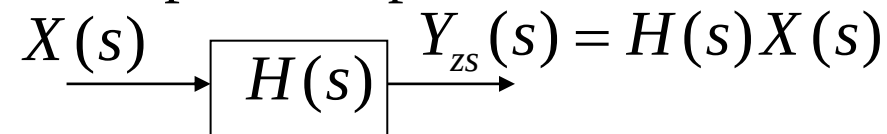


$H(s) = \int_{0^-}^{\infty} h(t)e^{-st} dt$ is the Laplace transform of the unit impulse response of a **causal system**, also known as the **system function**.

For a continuous-time signal $x(t)$, acting on a linear time-invariant system with unit impulse response $h(t)$, its **zero-state response** $y_{zs}(t)$ is equal to the **convolution** of the input signal and the unit impulse response:



By the **time-domain convolution theorem**, the Laplace transform of the zero-state response is equal to the **product** of the Laplace transform of the input signal and the Laplace transform of the unit impulse response:



The **system function** is equal to the **ratio** of the Laplace transform of the zero-state response to the Laplace transform of the input signal:

$$H(s) = Y_{zs}(s) / X(s)$$

4.7.2 Driving Point Function and Transfer Function

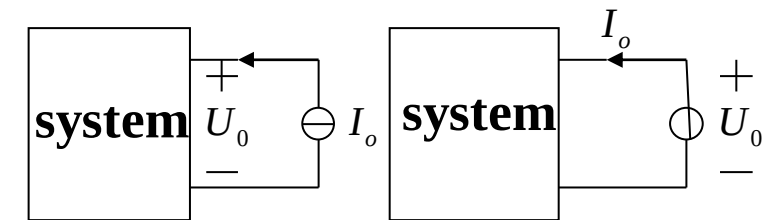
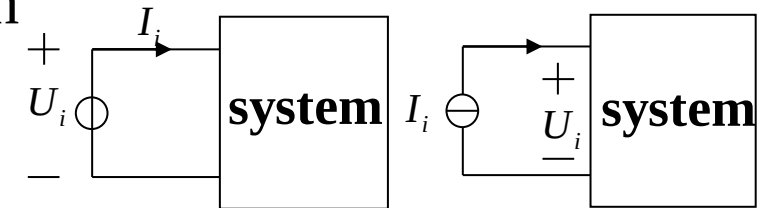
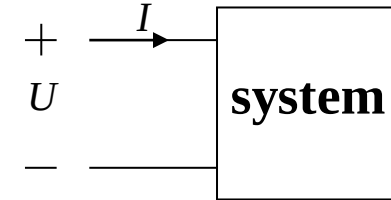
1. Driving Point Function

When the input and output of the system are taken from the same port, the system function is called the **driving point function**.

Depending on its dimension, the driving point function can also be called **impedance function** or **admittance function**. For example, the input or output impedance (ratio of voltage to current) of an amplifier, input or output admittance (ratio of current to voltage), etc.

$$\text{Impedance: } Z_i(s) = \frac{U_i(s)}{I_i(s)} \quad Z_o(s) = \frac{U_o(s)}{I_o(s)}$$

$$\text{Admittance: } Y_i(s) = \frac{I_i(s)}{U_i(s)} \quad Y_o(s) = \frac{I_o(s)}{U_o(s)}$$



2. Transfer (Transmission) Function

When the input and output of the system are taken from different ports, the system function is called the **transfer function** or **transmission function**.

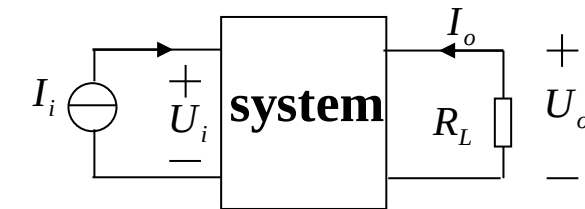
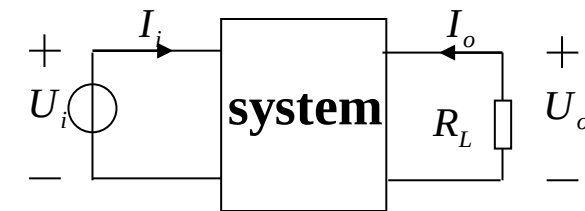
Depending on its dimension, the transfer function can be called **transfer impedance**, **transfer admittance**, **voltage transmission ratio**, or **current transmission ratio**, etc. For example, the voltage or current gain of an amplifier.

$$\text{Transfer Impedance: } Z_{21}(s) = \frac{U_o(s)}{I_i(s)}$$

$$\text{Transfer Admittance: } Y_{21}(s) = \frac{I_o(s)}{U_i(s)}$$

$$\text{Voltage Transmission Ratio: } K_v(s) = \frac{U_o(s)}{U_i(s)}$$

$$\text{Current Transmission Ratio: } K_i(s) = \frac{I_o(s)}{I_i(s)}$$



4.7.3 Solution of System Function

Since the system function is the ratio of the Laplace transform of the system's zero-state response to that of the excitation, **its solution is independent of the system's initial conditions.**

Example 4-23: Given the system's differential equation

$$\frac{d^2 y(t)}{dt^2} + 3 \frac{dy(t)}{dt} + 2y(t) = \frac{dx(t)}{dt} + 3x(t)$$

find the system function $\mathbf{H(s)}$ and the system's unit impulse response $\mathbf{h(t)}$.

Solution: Take the Laplace transform of the above equation. When using the differential property, **the initial conditions are zero.**

$$(s^2 + 3s + 2)Y(s) = (s + 3)X(s)$$

Thus, the system function is

$$H(s) = \frac{Y(s)}{X(s)} = \frac{s + 3}{s^2 + 3s + 2} = \frac{s + 3}{(s + 1)(s + 2)} = \frac{2}{s + 1} - \frac{1}{s + 2}$$

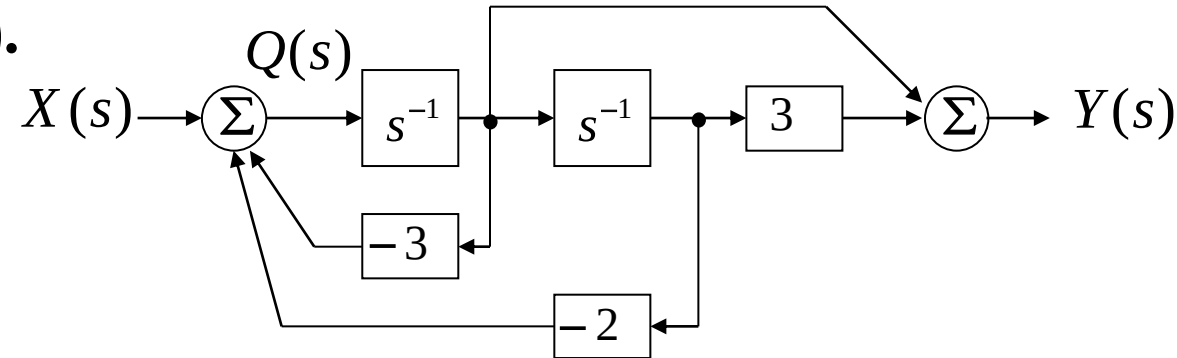
The impulse response of the system is:

$$h(t) = (2e^{-t} - e^{-2t})u(t)$$

4.7 System Function



Example 4-24: Given the simulation block diagram of a system as follows, find the system function $H(s)$.



Solution: Let $Q(s)$ be the output of the previous adder. Then:

$$Q(s) = X(s) - 3s^{-1}Q(s) - 2s^{-2}Q(s)$$

$$X(s) = (1 + 3s^{-1} + 2s^{-2})Q(s)$$

The output $Y(s)$ of the latter adder is equal to:

$$Y(s) = s^{-1}Q(s) + 3s^{-2}Q(s) = (s^{-1} + 3s^{-2})Q(s)$$

thus,

$$H(s) = \frac{Y(s)}{X(s)} = \frac{s^{-1} + 3s^{-2}}{1 + 3s^{-1} + 2s^{-2}} = \frac{s + 3}{s^2 + 3s + 2}$$



4.8.1 Zero-pole Distribution of System Function and Waveform of Unit Impulse Response

The unit impulse response of a system is the inverse Laplace transform of the system function: $h(t) = L^{-1}\{H(s)\}$

Generally, the system function is a rational fraction, so:

$$h(t) = L^{-1}\left\{\frac{N(s)}{D(s)}\right\} = L^{-1}\left\{\frac{A \prod_{k=1}^M (s - z_k)}{\prod_{k=1}^N (s - p_k)}\right\} = L^{-1}\left\{\sum_{k=1}^N \frac{A_k}{s - p_k}\right\} = \sum_{k=1}^N A_k e^{p_k t} u(t)$$

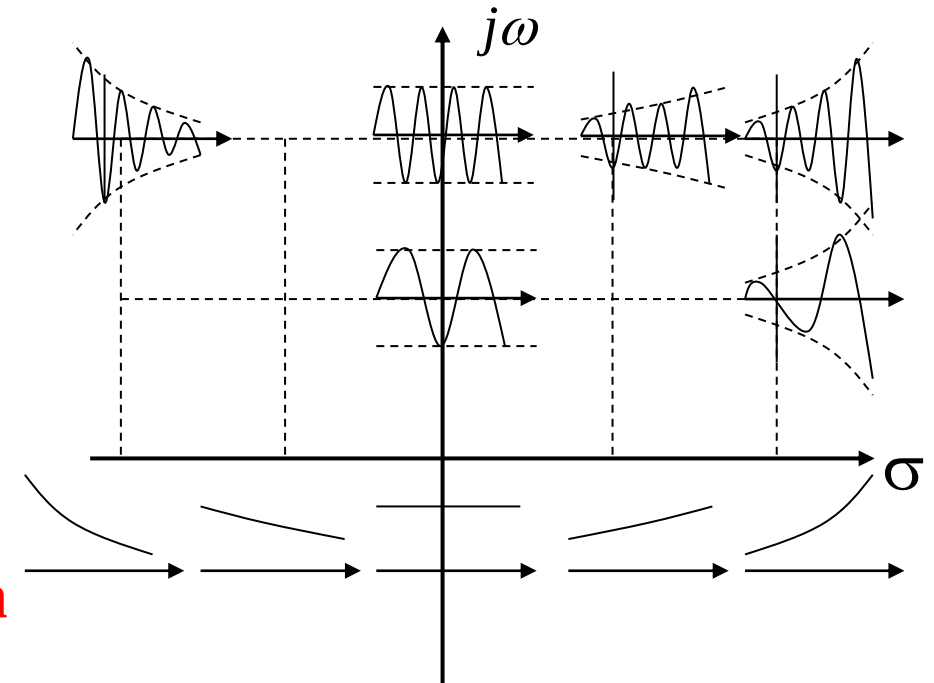
In the above equation, $\mathbf{z}_k$ and $\mathbf{p}_k$ are the zeros and poles of the system function, respectively. The different positions of zeros and poles in the s-plane have different effects on the unit impulse response.

The s-plane is a complex plane, where the σ -axis is the real axis and the imaginary axis is denoted by $j\omega$. Different points s on the plane correspond to different time signals e^{st} .

$$e^{st} = e^{(\sigma + j\omega)t} = e^{\sigma t} \cdot e^{j\omega t} = e^{\sigma t} (\cos \omega t + j \sin \omega t)$$

The signal e^{st} represents a sine-cosine signal with amplitude changing exponentially. **The farther a point is from the real axis, the higher the frequency of the signal change; the farther a point is from the imaginary axis, the faster the signal amplitude grows or decays.**

The points on the real axis represent signals with monotonic exponential changes;
points on the imaginary axis represent sine-cosine signals with constant-amplitude oscillations.





First-order Poles

$$H(s) = \frac{1}{s}, \quad p_1 = 0 \text{ at the origin}, \quad h(t) = L^{-1}[H(s)] = u(t)$$

$$H(s) = \frac{1}{s + \alpha}, \quad p_1 = -\alpha$$

$\alpha > 0$, on the left real axis, $h(t) = e^{-\alpha t} u(t)$, exponential decay

$\alpha < 0$, on the right real axis, $h(t) = e^{-\alpha t} u(t)$, exponential growth

$$H(s) = \frac{\omega}{s^2 + \omega^2}, \quad p_{1,2} = \pm j\omega, \text{ on the imaginary axis}$$

$h(t) = \sin(\omega t)u(t)$, constant – amplitude oscillation

$$H(s) = \frac{\omega}{(s + \alpha)^2 + \omega^2}, \quad p_{1,2} = -\alpha \pm j\omega \quad h(t) = e^{-\alpha t} \sin \omega t u(t)$$

When $\alpha > 0$, poles in the left half-plane, damped oscillation;

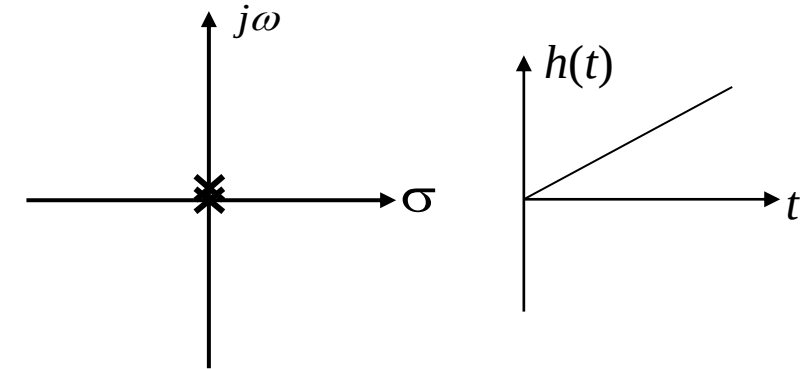
When $\alpha < 0$, poles in the right half-plane, growing oscillation

Second-order Poles

$$H(s) = \frac{1}{s^2}, \text{ pole at the origin,}$$

$$h(t) = tu(t)$$

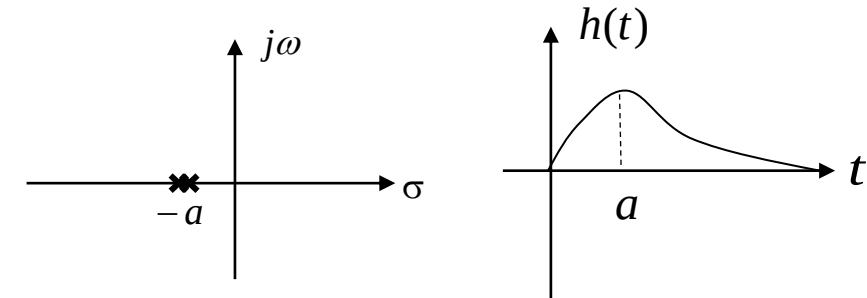
$$t \rightarrow \infty, h(t) \rightarrow \infty$$



$$H(s) = \frac{1}{(s + \alpha)^2}, \text{ pole on the real axis,}$$

$$h(t) = t e^{-\alpha t} u(t), \alpha > 0$$

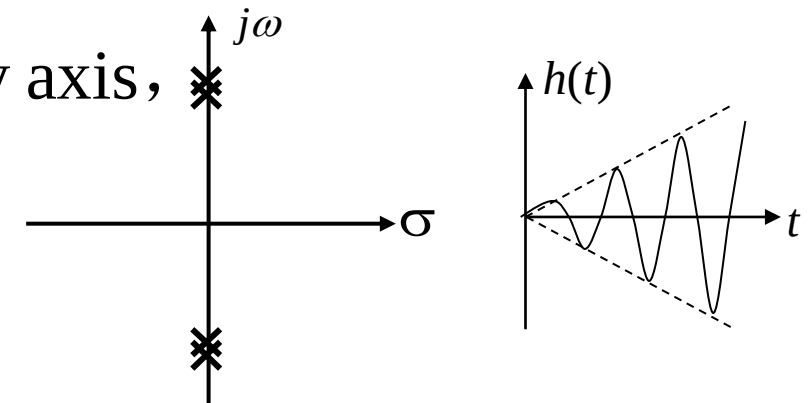
$$t \rightarrow \infty, h(t) \rightarrow 0$$



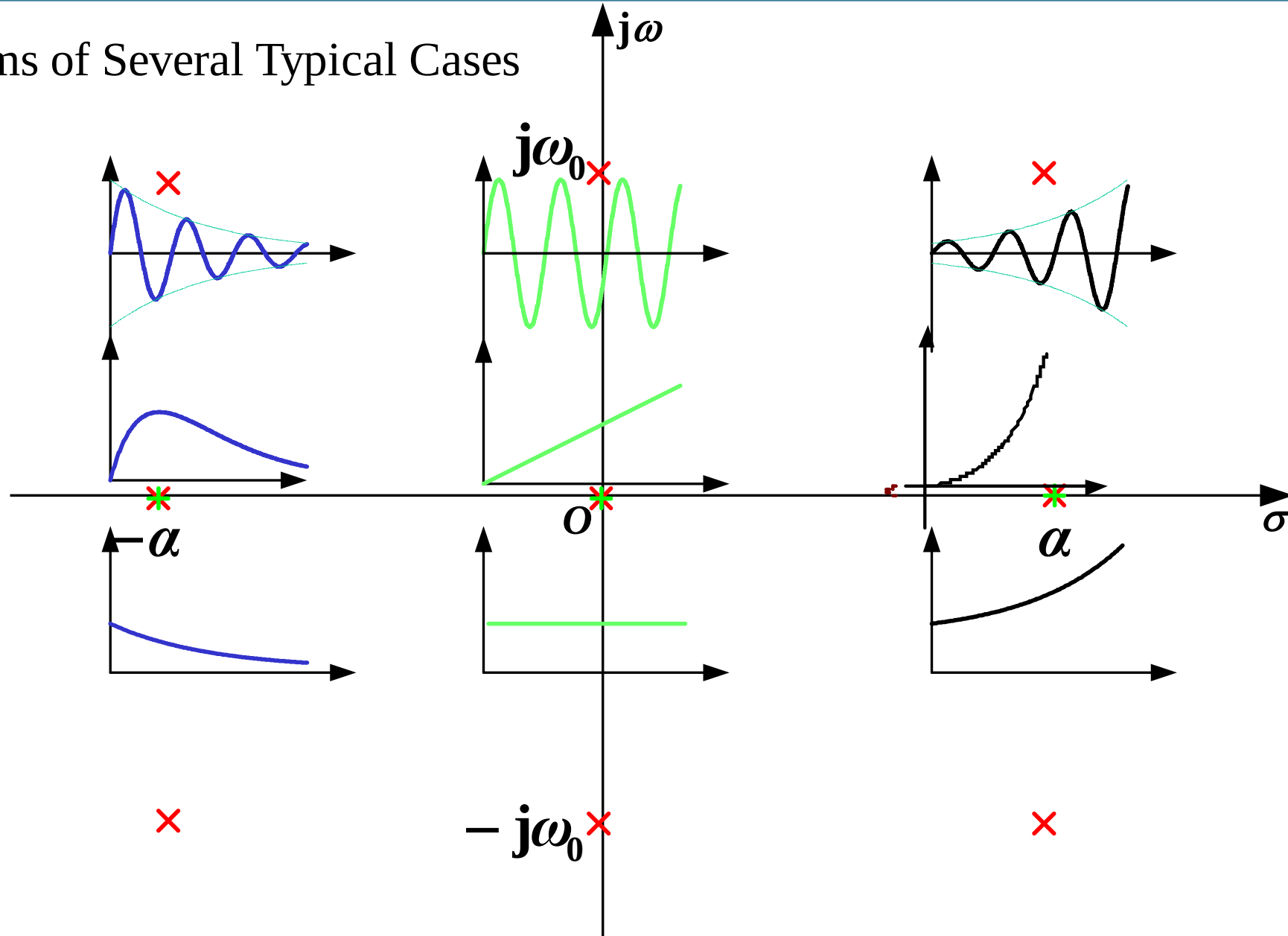
$$H(s) = \frac{2\omega s}{(s^2 + \omega^2)^2}, \text{ pole on the imaginary axis,}$$

$$h(t) = t \sin \omega t u(t)$$

$$t \rightarrow \infty, h(t) \text{ exhibits growing oscillation}$$



Diagrams of Several Typical Cases





Correspondence between Poles of $H(s)$ and Waveform Characteristics of $h(t)$:

Poles on the left half-plane of the s-plane

$h(t)$ exhibits a decaying form

Poles on the right half-plane of the s-plane

$h(t)$ exhibits a growing form

Poles on the imaginary axis of the s-plane
(excluding the origin)

$h(t)$ has constant-amplitude oscillation
(first-order poles) or growing
oscillation (multi-order poles)

Poles on the real axis of the s-plane
(excluding the origin)

$h(t)$ exhibits exponential-related
changes (first-order or multi-
order poles)

Poles at the origin of the s-plane

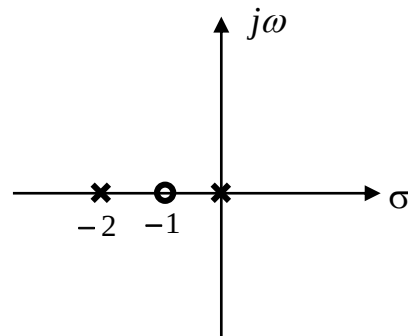
$h(t)$ is equal to $u(t)$ (first-order pole)
or grows as t^n (multi-order poles)

Example 4-25: Given the following system functions, sketch their zero-pole plots, and roughly draw the waveforms of their impulse responses.

$$H_1(s) = \frac{s+1}{s(s+2)} \quad H_2(s) = \frac{s+1}{s^2 + 2s + 2} \quad H_3(s) = \frac{1}{(s+1)^2}$$

Solution:

The zero-pole plot of $H_1(s)$:

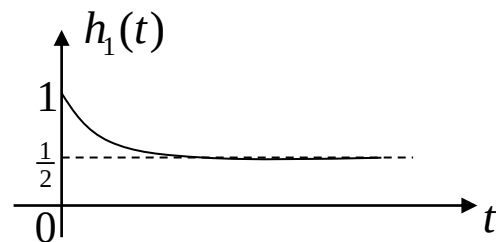


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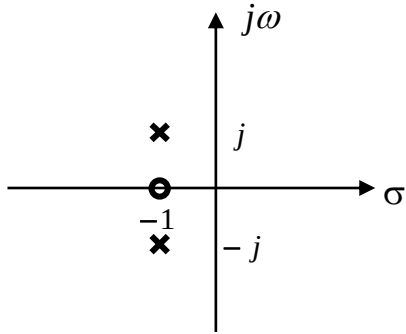
$$H_1(s) = \frac{s+1}{s(s+2)} = \frac{1}{2s} + \frac{1}{2(s+2)}$$

Thus,

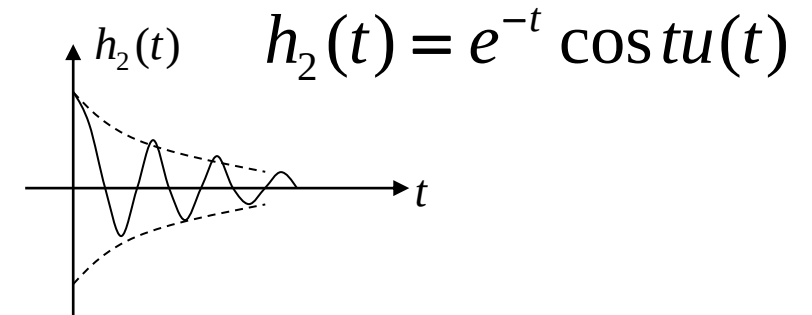
$$h_1(t) = \frac{1}{2} (1 + e^{-2t}) u(t)$$



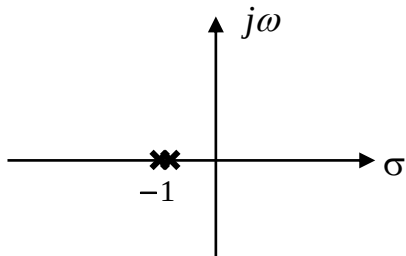
The zero-pole plot of $H_2(s)$:



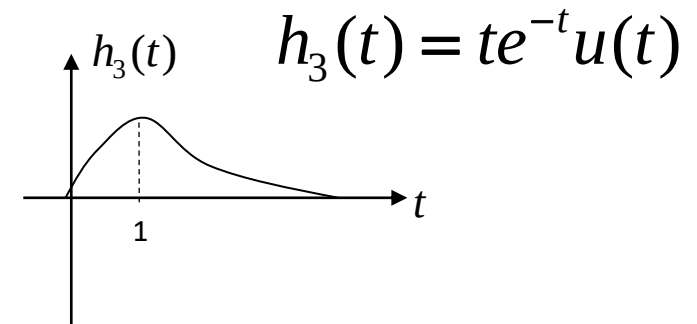
$$H_2(s) = \frac{s+1}{s^2 + 2s + 2} = \frac{s+1}{(s+1)^2 + 1}$$



The zero-pole plot of $H_3(s)$:



$$H_3(s) = \frac{1}{(s+1)^2}$$



It can be seen that if a pole is a multi-order pole, its corresponding time-domain waveform is different from that of a first-order pole.



4.8.2 Zero-pole Distribution of System Function & Excitation and Response Components

The **poles** of the system function and the excitation jointly determine the waveform of the response. $Y(s) = X(s)H(s)$

Example 4-26: Let the system function be $H(s) = \frac{s+3}{s^2+3s+2}$, the system excitation be $x(t) = u(t)$, and the initial state be zero. Find the zero-state response of the system, and identify the free response and forced response.

Solution: The Laplace transform of the zero-state response of the system is

$$Y(s) = X(s)H(s) = \frac{1}{s} \cdot \frac{s+3}{s^2+3s+2} = \frac{s+3}{s(s+1)(s+2)} = \frac{\frac{3}{2}}{s} - \frac{2}{s+1} + \frac{\frac{1}{2}}{s+2}$$

Therefore,

the zero-state response of the system is $y(t) = \frac{1}{2}(3 - 4e^{-t} + e^{-2t})u(t)$

where, the free response is $y_h(t) = (\frac{1}{2}e^{-2t} - 2e^{-t})u(t)$, and the forced response is $y_p(t) = \frac{3}{2}u(t)$

The poles of the system function correspond to the free response components; the poles of the excitation correspond to the forced response components.

Example 4-27: Given the differential equation of an LTI system:

$$r''(t) + 2r'(t) + r(t) = e'(t)$$

Find the zero-state response $r_{zs}(t)$ if the excitation is $e(t) = u(t)$.

Solution: Take the Laplace transform of both sides of the differential equation:

$$(s^2 + 2s + 1)R(s) = sE(s)$$

$$H(s) = \frac{R(s)}{E(s)} = \frac{s}{s^2 + 2s + 1} = \frac{s^{-1}}{1 + 2s^{-1} + s^{-2}}$$

Find the Laplace transform of the excitation: $E(s) = \frac{1}{s}$ **zero-pole cancellation**

$$R_{zs}(s) = H(s)E(s) = \frac{sE(s)}{s^2 + 2s + 1} = \frac{\overset{\text{zero-pole cancellation}}{\cancel{s}} \frac{1}{\cancel{s}}}{s^2 + 2s + 1} = \frac{1}{s^2 + 2s + 1} = \frac{1}{(s + 1)^2}$$

Using the Laplace transform of $tu(t)$ (which is $1/s^2$) and the frequency-shifting property, find the inverse Laplace transform of $R_{zs}(s)$:

$$r_{zs}(t) = te^{-t}u(t) \quad \text{Natural response only; no forced response due to zero-pole cancellation}$$

4.9.1 $H(s)$ and $H(\omega)$

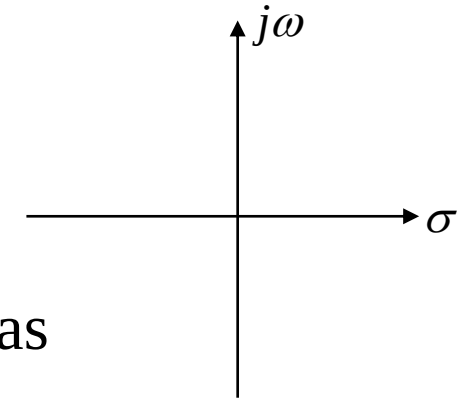
The Laplace transform is an extension of the Fourier transform from the real frequency domain ω to the complex frequency domain s , and the Fourier transform is a special case of the Laplace transform on the imaginary axis of the s -plane. **Generally speaking,** $H(\omega) = H(s)|_{s=j\omega}$

4.9.2 Zero-pole Distribution of $H(s)$ and $H(\omega)$

Since $H(s)$ is generally a rational fraction, it can be expressed as

$$H(s) = \frac{N(s)}{D(s)} = \frac{G \prod_{k=1}^M (s - z_k)}{\prod_{k=1}^N (s - p_k)}$$

G —constant



4.9 Frequency Response from System Function Zero-pole Distribution

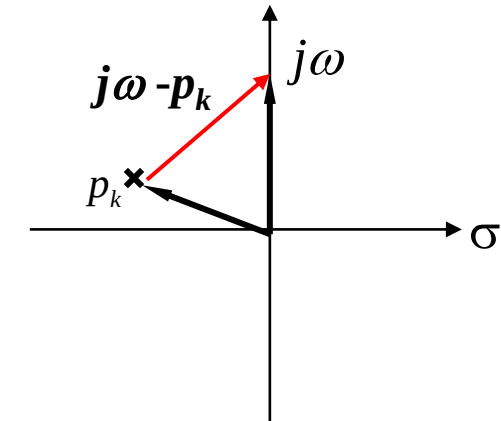


The frequency response of a system can be **generally** expressed as:

$$H(\omega) = H(s) \Big|_{s=j\omega} = \frac{G \prod_{k=1}^M (s - z_k)}{\prod_{k=1}^N (s - p_k)} \Big|_{s=j\omega} = \frac{G \prod_{k=1}^M (j\omega - z_k)}{\prod_{k=1}^N (j\omega - p_k)}$$

In the above equation, each factor in the numerator and denominator represents a vector on the **s-plane** pointing to the **$j\omega$ -axis**.

The factor **$(j\omega - p_k)$** represents the difference vector between the vector **$j\omega$** (varying along the imaginary axis) and the vector from the origin to **p_k** .



The vector corresponding to the factor in the numerator is called the **zero vector**; the vector corresponding to the factor in the denominator is called the **pole vector**.

4.9 Frequency Response from System Function Zero-pole Distribution

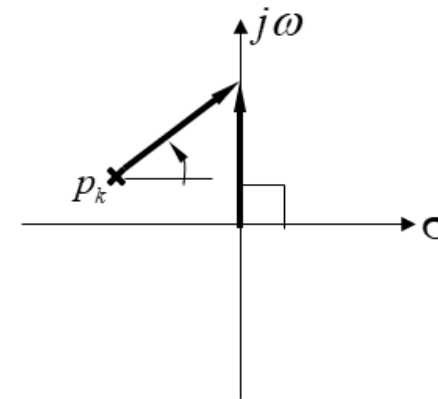


Each vector has its magnitude and phase, so:

$$H(\omega) = \frac{G \prod_{k=1}^M (j\omega - z_k)}{\prod_{k=1}^N (j\omega - p_k)} = \frac{G \prod_{k=1}^M B_k e^{j\beta_k}}{\prod_{k=1}^N A_k e^{j\theta_k}} = \frac{G \prod_{k=1}^M B_k}{\prod_{k=1}^N A_k} e^{j(\sum_{k=1}^M \beta_k - \sum_{k=1}^N \theta_k)}$$
$$= |H(\omega)| e^{j\varphi(\omega)}$$

$$|H(\omega)| = \frac{G \prod_{k=1}^M B_k}{\prod_{k=1}^N A_k}$$

$$\varphi(\omega) = \sum_{k=1}^M \beta_k - \sum_{k=1}^N \theta_k$$



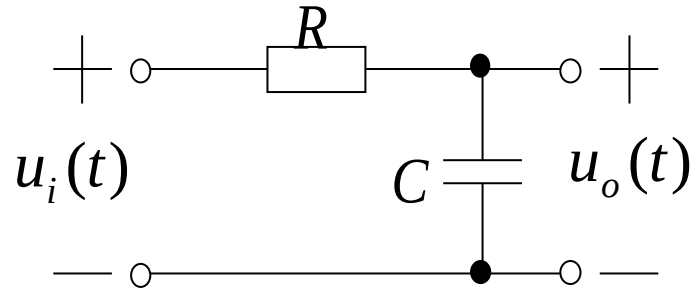
The **magnitude-frequency response** of the system is **the ratio of the product of the magnitudes of zero vectors to the product of the magnitudes of pole vectors.**

The **phase-frequency response** of the system is **the sum of the phases of zero vectors minus the sum of the phases of pole vectors.**

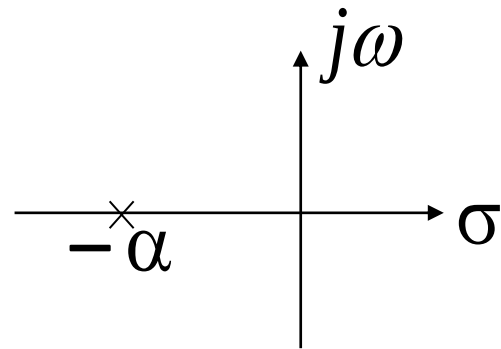
4.9 Frequency Response from System Function Zero-pole Distribution



Example 4-28: For the RC circuit shown below, find its system function, draw its zero-pole plot, find its frequency response, and roughly sketch its frequency response curve.



Solution: The system function of the circuit is



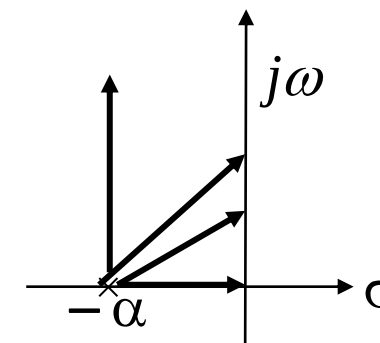
$$\begin{aligned} H(s) &= \frac{U_o(s)}{U_i(s)} = \frac{\frac{1}{sC}}{R + \frac{1}{sC}} = \frac{1}{RCs + 1} \\ &= \frac{1}{s + \frac{1}{RC}} = \frac{\alpha}{s + \alpha} \quad \left(\alpha = \frac{1}{RC} \right) \end{aligned}$$

4.9 Frequency Response from System Function Zero-pole Distribution



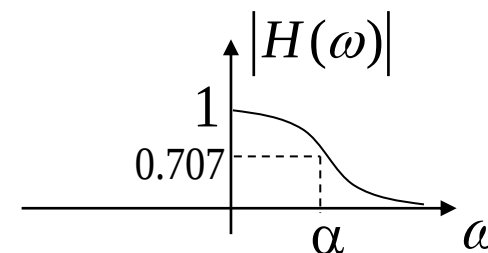
Roughly sketch the frequency response from $H(s) = \frac{\alpha}{s + \alpha}$:

(1) when $\omega = 0$, the pole vector points to the origin, with magnitude α and phase 0; thus, $|H(\omega)| = \alpha/\alpha = 1$, $\varphi(\omega) = 0$

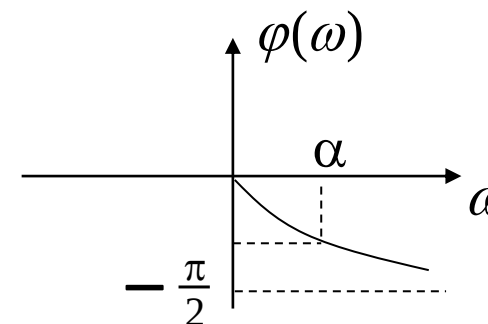


(2) when $\omega \uparrow$, the magnitude of the pole vector $\uparrow$, phase $\uparrow$; $|H(\omega)| \downarrow$, $\varphi(\omega) \downarrow$.

(3) when $\omega = \alpha$, $|H(\omega)| \approx 0.707$, $\varphi(\omega) = -\pi/4$.



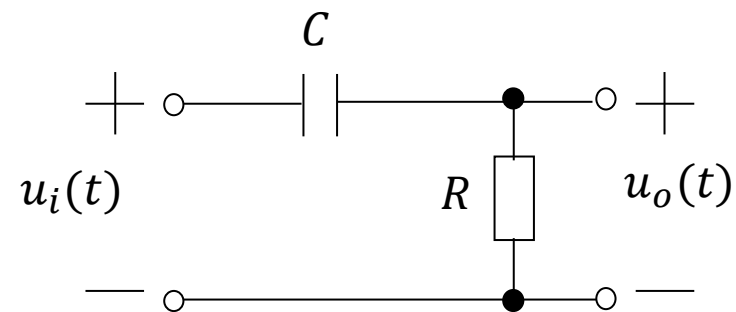
(4) when $\omega \rightarrow \infty$, $|H(\omega)| \rightarrow 0$, $\varphi(\omega) \rightarrow -\pi/2$.



From its magnitude-frequency response curve, it can be seen that it is a **low-pass filter**.

$$H(\omega) = \frac{\alpha}{j\omega + \alpha} = \frac{\alpha}{\sqrt{\omega^2 + \alpha^2}} e^{-j \arctg(\frac{\omega}{\alpha})}$$

For the RC circuit shown below, it represents a ().



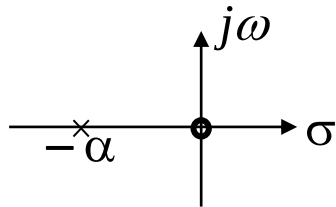
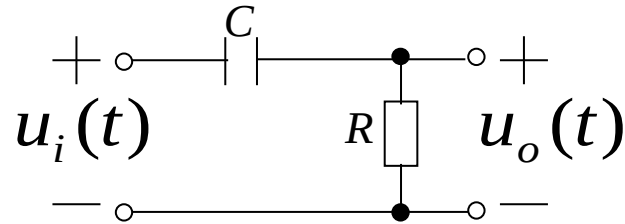
- ☐ A Low-pass filter
- ☒ B High-pass filter
- ☐ C Band-pass filter
- ☐ D All-pass filter

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4.9 Frequency Response from System Function Zero-pole Distribution



Example 4-29: For the RC circuit shown in the figure, find its system function, draw its zero-pole plot, find its frequency response, and roughly sketch its frequency response curve.



Solution: The system function of the circuit is derived as follows:

$$H(s) = \frac{U_o(s)}{U_i(s)} = \frac{R}{R + \frac{1}{sC}} = \frac{RCs}{RCs + 1}$$

$$= \frac{s}{s + \frac{1}{RC}} = \frac{s}{s + \alpha} \quad \left(\alpha = \frac{1}{RC} \right)$$

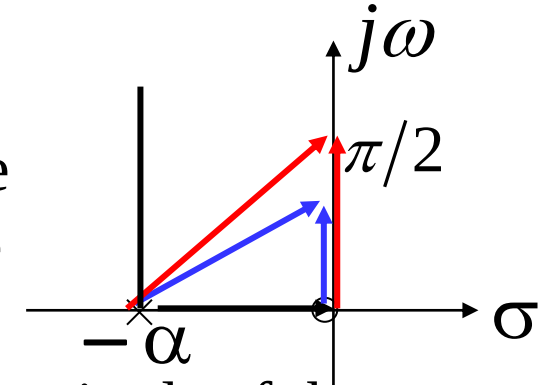
$$H(\omega) = \frac{j\omega}{j\omega + \alpha}$$

4.9 Frequency Response from System Function Zero-pole Distribution



Roughly sketch the frequency response from $H(s) = \frac{s}{s + \alpha}$:

(1) when $\omega = 0$, the pole vector points to the origin, with a magnitude of α and a phase of 0 ; the zero vector has a magnitude of 0 and a phase of $\pi/2$; thus, $|H(\omega)| = 0$, $\varphi(\omega) = \pi/2$.



(2) when $\omega \uparrow$, the magnitude of the pole vector $\uparrow$, the phase $\uparrow$; the magnitude of the zero vector $\uparrow$, **and its increasing rate is higher than that of the pole vector**, with a phase of $\pi/2$; $|H(\omega)| \uparrow$, $\varphi(\omega) \downarrow = (\pi/2) - \arctg(\omega/\alpha)$

For example, when the phase is $\pi/6$, the magnitude of the zero vector is $\sqrt{3}\alpha/3$, the magnitude of the pole vector is $2\sqrt{3}\alpha/3$, and $|H(\omega)| = 1/2$; when the phase approaches $\pi/4$, the magnitude of the zero vector approaches α , the magnitude of the pole vector approaches $\sqrt{2}\alpha$, and $|H(\omega)| \rightarrow 0.707$.

(3) when $\omega = \alpha$, $|H(\omega)| \approx 0.707$, $\varphi(\omega) = \pi/4$.

(4) when $\omega \rightarrow \infty$, both the zero vector and the pole vector are perpendicular to the real axis and point to infinity, with infinite magnitude and a phase of $\pi/2$.

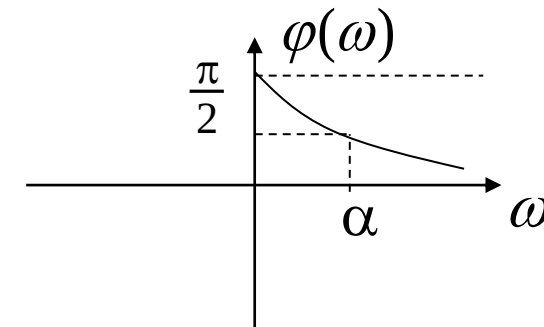
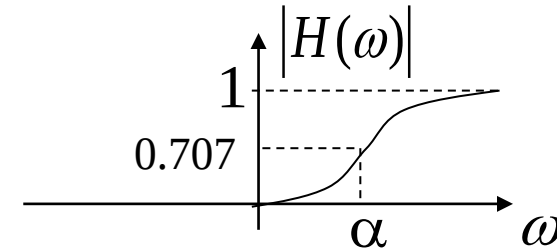
At this point, $|H(\omega)| \rightarrow 1$, $\varphi(\omega) \rightarrow 0$.

4.9 Frequency Response from System Function Zero-pole Distribution



$$|H(\omega)| = \frac{|\omega|}{\sqrt{\omega^2 + \alpha^2}}$$

$$\varphi(\omega) = \begin{cases} \frac{\pi}{2} - \arctg\left(\frac{\omega}{\alpha}\right) & \omega > 0 \\ -\frac{\pi}{2} - \arctg\left(\frac{\omega}{\alpha}\right) & \omega < 0 \end{cases}$$



From its magnitude-frequency response curve, it can be seen that this is a **high-pass filter**.

$$H_{HP}(\omega) = \frac{j\omega}{j\omega + \alpha}, \quad H_{LP}(\omega) = \frac{\alpha}{j\omega + \alpha}$$

$$H_{HP}(\omega) = 1 - H_{LP}(\omega)$$

- Repeat the examples in the lecture notes.
- 6.47(b), 6.48(b) and 6.53(a) in the textbook.